

Formation of Uzbek statehood and stages of its development

Introduction

The history of statehood indicates the formation of political entities, transformation from adats and tribal forms to certain legally based structures under particular ruler and system.

The tribal forms mostly indicate to control of a particular geographical area under the limited regulation. The transformation to statehood is the combination or alliance of different nations and tribes under more developed legal process. The statehood in Uzbekistan developed for about 3000 thousand years whose first buds appeared in Khwarazm after the development of urban building in the area. The history of statehood in the area is classified as sovereign and dependent periods. The form of statehood was mainly monarchy until 1920 and thus it can be studies in chronological order of dynastic development.

Module goal. The factors that led to state formation, the reasons of rise and fall, periods of state formation in ancient times, the sequence of dynasties, the main characters of states are of important issues to be discussed in the lesson. In particular, the notion of statehood, in the periods till the VIII century, types of state rulers, structure of state formation in Samanids, Bukhara khanate, Temurid period are given as examples to develop viewpoint about the structure of states.

Learning objectives.

State is a political entity of society developed under certain rules. Statehood in the world has had several forms in formation, governance, ruling class, territorial form and the path of development. Besides, in the formation of states, we can see autochthonous and foreign based ones. The statehood history in the world goes back to about 5000 years and they first appeared in Mesopotamia and Egypt. In Central Asia, early countries appeared in the early I millennium BC and they were Bactria, Sogdia and Great Khwarazm. The stages of development are seen in changes in structure and concept of states. For example, we can see absolute monarchy, confederative states and domains in ancient period. In the title of rulers, the beliefs of people played a vital role.

After the Islamization of the area, Islamic principle were dominant in state administration in medieval Ages. However, they were enriched by Turkic elements as well. In the changes of dynasties, the role of particular commanders played a significant role. Almost all the new dynasties gained political popularity in the realm of latest rulers due to their bravery in wars, their roles in solving foreign issues and etc. These factors grew their status and influence, as well as them in foreign countries. The crisis of dynasties is mostly related with internal conflicts among ruling family members, the assassinations of elder members which resulted the appointment of younger ones who were unable to rule, high exemption to certain stratum of society.

In general, the students will learn the history of the development of Uzbek statehood by the time of the formation Soviet based countries.

The concept of Statehood

Modern statehood is a mode of political organization of 'society' in which the state is the primary agent charged with building the representation of society aware of itself and in harmony with itself. Nation-states have become the preferred mode by which all of the earth's polities organize people and territory into formally comparable and sovereign governing units. The scope of the state now goes beyond traditional activities such as war and the production of laws regulating the exercise of power over territoriality and commerce; but also it generates forms of subjectivity in people. Anthropologists initially accompanied this expansion of the state by studying the elimination, transformation, or preservation of indigenous peoples, tribes, peasants, clans, and kinship systems through the creation of encompassing, though also exclusionary, national forms of belonging. One of the major anthropological aspects of states has been the deployment of anthropologies: ways of defining and categorizing populations and of systematizing knowledge about them. Hence, the science of anthropology has followed closely and defined its objects in terms of state projects, alternately supportive and oppositional: itemizing culture traits and social organizations of discrete peoples, tracing efforts at internal and external colonization, mapping the settling and resettling of territory, and tracking diasporic populations and global trade routes.

The origin and development of ancient states

Proto-urbanization in Central Asia

It seems possible that during the Late Bronze Age in the second half of the II millennium BC, in the more advanced regions of Central Asia, the first early state formations came into being as city-states. The state representing a special form of social organization, emerges at a particular stage of social evolution in those regions where the development of civilization, as understood in the widest sense, reaches a high level.

The first type of state-like entities are the earliest towns, which were the economic, political and religious centres of extremely small "states", as regards the territory they occupied the so-called city-states. Later these city-states, for specific reasons, united to form comparatively large kingdoms, some of which later developed into enormous empires.

The first proto-state formations, administered almost as fully fledged city-states, would appear to have emerged in the second half of the II millennium BC in the South, in the agricultural oases of Bactria and Margiana. Proto-towns of this type are represented by the Altyndepe, Namazgadepe, Jarkutan and other dominant settlements tied to a particular area through a water-management system and possessing many attributes of city-states or oasis towns.

The existence of a fairly well developed economy, including agriculture based on irrigation, the advance of crafts (pottery production and metal-working), trade within both small and large areas and in particular the emergence of dominant settlements like Jarkutan, indicating how such formations were coming to resemble states. Judging by

the presence of several *necropoleis* at Jarkutan, we can assume that it consisted of a number of 'settlements' united under the power of one elected ruler. The presence of a temple and palace in that settlement testifies to the existence of fairly developed forms of administrative apparatus and the isolation of a priestly caste.

Periods in the Development of Early States

With regard to the evolution of ancient statehood in Mavarannahr, it is possible to single out six main periods in the time between the second half of the 1 millennium BC through to the second half of the 3rd / 4th century AD, i.e. the time of transition from ancient to medieval states.

The emergence of the early form of statehood in this region took shape on the basis of the economic and cultural achievements of the settled farming civilization which had been developing in the territory of southern Uzbekistan since the late Bronze Age. The end of this process coincides almost exactly with the fall of the Kushan and Parthian kingdoms in the first half of the 3rd century AD. Approximately at the same time the state of Kangju also ceased to exist.

Period 1. The second half of the II millennium BC

The primary forms of statehood in the region of Northern Bactria would appear to have emerged in the form of the voluntary joining together of a number of cultural oasis-areas led by an elected ruler and a council of elders. This association was possibly part of a larger state formation, which took shape at that time in the territory of Bactria.

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Period 2. From the beginning of the I millennium BC to VI century BC

The formation of the so-called historical-cultural regions of Bactria, Sogdia and Khorezmia may be seen as the earliest forms of statehood with a ramified hierarchy of power. This is borne out in particular by texts from the Avesta in which, a number of social units are mentioned: *nmana* (a household/family), *vis* (a clan or clan-based settlement), *zantu* (a tribe), *dakhy* (region/country) and also various high-ranking persons, including the sovereign of a state or region (*dakhy-patj*), a ruler, an overlord (*sastar*) and various others.

Period 3. 539 to 330 BC

The development of local forms of statehood was interrupted by the conquests of the Achaemenids and the incorporation of Central Asian regions into the Achaemenid state.

For 200 years the complete or more precisely almost the complete territory of Mavarannahr was ruled over by the Achaemenid (Ancient Persian) state, which can be characterized as an absolute monarchy, in which the "King of Kings" exercised unlimited and despotic power. The entire territory of this kingdom, frequently referred to as an "empire in the historical literature, was divided into satrapies, each of which

was obliged to pay tribute in specific weight units - talents - into the treasury of the Achaemenid kings. Three of the Central Asian satrapies - Bactria, Sogdia and Khorezmia were completely or in part within the borders of modern Uzbekistan.

Period 4. Late IV century BC to the beginning of the second half of the II century BC

From the conquest by Alexander until the end of Greek dominance (the collapse of the Graeco-Bactrian kingdom). The coexistence of two forms of state and government, different in both nature and form - Hellenic in Northern Bactria and partially in Sogdia and Khorezmia and Kangju in other parts of Mavarannahr.

The northern and central parts of Mavarannahr - Khorezmia, Sogdia and Ferghana - were emerging as autochthonous states, which can, with certain reservations, be referred to as those of a "Khorezmian-Kangju type". After breaking free from the domination of the Achaemenid kingdom in the IV century BC, Khorezmia was the first region to form an independent state.

At the end of the 3rd and beginning of the 2nd century BC the independent states of Bukhara and Sogdia emerged. At that time a type of state had also emerged in Dayuan (Ferghana).

In the same period the confederate state of Kangju evidently appeared on the scene, which incorporated the central and northern parts of Mavarannahr.

Period IV. The second half of the 2 century BC - the beginning of the 1 century AD.

This period is also distinguished by the existence of the Kangju-Yuezhi type of statehood, which spread over the whole territory of Mavarannahr and combined principles of administration used by nomadic tribes with the traditions of statehood which already existed there.

Period VI. The beginning of the 1 century to the mid-8 century

This is the heyday of ancient statehood in the territory of modern Uzbekistan, but at the same time the final phase of its development.

The most remarkable phenomenon of this period was the emergence of the powerful Kushan kingdom, founded at the beginning of the 1st century AD by Kujula Kadphises, who was one of the leaders of the Kushan clan of the Yuezhi tribes.

To the north of the Kushan kingdom there was the confederative state of Kangju, parts of which had become hereditary territories and had acquired even more independence than before. In this period Khorezmia became a very powerful independent state, in which the Afrighid dynasty assumed power.

Typology of the Early States

1. State type - absolute monarchy. In the ancient history of Uzbekistan there were several periods.

From 539 BC till 330 BC almost the whole territory of Mavarannahr except for Ferghana and Chach, were ruled over by Achaemenid Persia, while Khorezmia, Sogdia, Bactria, and the lands of the Sakas constituted administrative units or satrapies

governed by satraps, who were appointed by the Achaemenid kings and obliged to pay tribute into their state treasury.

Another state governed by an absolute monarch with the help of regional governors but still retaining some independence was the Graeco-Bactrian kingdom.



Parthian kings.

In addition, a markedly predominant theocratic monarchy existed in the Kushan kingdom from the 1st century till the middle of the 3rd century AD.

2. State type - confederative kingdom. Form of government - limited monarchy. It is possible to categorize the Kangju and Yuezhi states or the state of the Large Yuezhi in its pre-Kushan period as states of this type.

Confederative kingdoms consisted usually of several independent domains ruled over by tribal leaders or heads of clans, who minted their own coins.

The Kangju state, for example, consisted of at least five domains: Bukhara with its environs, the South-east of Bukharan Sogdia, the North-west of Samarkand Sogdia, Samarkand Sogdia and Southern Sogdia.

The first Yuezhi state in the pre-Kushan period of its existence also constituted a confederative kingdom.

3. State type - domain. Form of government - hereditary power of tribal leaders, heads of clans. The 'domain was the most ancient type of state formation, which had emerged on the basis of the historical-cultural regions. Chinese chronicles mention 55 domains within Mavarannahr, enjoying independence and pursuing external policies of their own, particularly through the establishment of diplomatic relations with China and, probably also with other states.

Titles of Rulers of States

The political significance of a particular state can to a large extent be determined, not just by a whole range of factors, but also by its name or honorary title. These titles were inherited or acquired in the course of a struggle for power with other persons, who had initially been the bearers of equally important titles. As a state grew larger or more

powerful, its initial head, who might have been the bearer of a relatively modest title at first, would come to acquire all manner of titles exalting him as an individual and therefore his state as well. In a number of cases such titles would even liken the heads of such glorified states to deities, as in the case of the Chinese title "Son of God" or the equally elevated Indian title "*Davaputra*" or the Bactrian title "*Bago poura*". History can also bring us examples of cases, in which the rulers of provinces small in both area and political importance adopted the title "King" or even "King of Kings", but that was the exception rather than the rule.

Analysis of available data brings to the fore the historical pattern underlying the process by which titles of rulers in Central Asia changed during the whole of the period under discussion, depending upon the languages used in the dominant states of the region or upon historical-cultural factors

First Period Avestan. First half of the I millennium BC

The most ancient title used by rulers in Central Asia known to scholars was probably *kavi* which designated the kings of Bactria. It was precisely at the court of one of these *kavi* - Kavi Vishtaspa - whom the Zoroastrian tradition firmly links with Balkh (Bactria), that Zarathushtra began his preaching.

The title "basileus" was also used in connection with Oxyartes, ruler of Bactria.

The title *kavi* also appears later on. On copper coins with the depiction of an altar from the so-called "Turan" series dating from the 4th - 5th centuries AD which circulated in the Bukhara oasis, the word *ka vi* was to be found to the right of the altar.

Satar rulers of small regions linking together groups of oases.

Small possessions' rulers used the title *Dakhy-patL*

"Dakhy-pat of all the dakh" was a title, which meant "lord of all regions".

The title "tyrannos" was used by minor dependent rulers, although in the Greek tradition the title "tyrannos" had been used to designate someone who had seized power by force in a *pairs* and established his own personal rule there. The crucial feature of tyranny was autocracy.

There is a definite difference of opinion regarding the interpretation of the ethnic origin of this title. Some scholars consider the title *yabghu* to be of Turkic origin. Evidently in the second period of Kadphises I rule royal titles of Indian origin appear on his coins - "Great King" and "King of Kings" (*maharaja, rajatiraja*).

In later periods, the titles of rulers changed due to linguistic and legitimacy factors. After the liberation of Central Asia from Arabs, mostly the title "Amir" was used by Samanids and later rulers. However, Sultan was also widely used in the period of Ghaznavids, Seljuks while Khwarazm Shahs had the titles of Sultan and Shah.

The penetration of Turkic people in the XI century brought the title "Khan" which was also used in Mongol period. Though the head of state was called "Amir" during Timurids, "Khan" became again popular due to legitimacy claims. In the early modern age, there were two titles such as "Emir" and "Khan" in Turkestan.

The fall of monarchy in Turkestan led to changes in state formation and the titles of the head of state. In Soviet period, the country was controlled by Communist Party

representatives who were appointed by the centre. In 1990, the title “president” was introduced in Uzbekistan.

Though the world is having rapid globalism, the titles are still different due to the form of the countries. Some countries such as the UK, Saudi Arabia, UAE, Japan and etc. have different forms of monarchy despite the supremacy of presidential system. Presidential system has also got two forms. In one the president is responsible for his country (Uzbekistan, Russia, France, US, Turkey ...) while in the latter president has very limited power (Italy, Germany ...). Besides, the countries in the ideology of communism have the post of Prime Secretary.

The period between IV-VI centuries highlights the struggles between Turkic and Persian speaking nations in Central Asia. Sasanian kingdom that occupied beyond the Amu Darya in the III century faced the attacks of Kidarites (Chionites) coming from northern parts of Uzbekistan. They were led by Grumbates, ‘the new king of the Chionites, possessing an outstanding intellect and famous for the multitude of his victories. The only corroboration of the presence of the Kidarites in Sogdiana is provided by early Sogdian coins with the image of an archer on the reverse and the word kydr (Kidara) in the obverse legend. These coins were minted in Samarkand from the first to the fifth century.

From the mid-fifth to the mid-sixth century Central Asia was ruled by the Hephthalites. The Hephthalites had strong forces. Sources describe them as skilful warriors and their army as powerful. Judging by their military operations, they probably possessed a strong cavalry force led by an asbarobido (cavalry commander).

By the middle of the sixth century, the Hephthalites of Central Asia found themselves squeezed between Sasanian Iran, whose power had increased tremendously under Khusrau I, and the Türks, who had conquered much of the north-east of Central Asia. The opponents of the Hephthalites entered into diplomatic negotiations with one another, but when the kaghan of the Türks dispatched ambassadors to Iran, they were killed in Hephthalite territory at the command of the Hephthalite king. The kaghan moved his forces and seized Chach (modern Tashkent) and continued to the Syr Darya (Jaxartes). The forces of the Hephthalites gathered in the region of Bukhara, towards which Hephthalite detachments marched from Termez, southern Tajikistan and even the Pamirs. An eight-day battle was fought in the Bukhara area, in the course of which the Hephthalites were routed. Their troops fled south and there elected a new king, Faganish (or Afganish), but the south of Central Asia had been occupied by Sasanian troops.

The information about the society of the Hephthalites, their customs and ways of living, is extremely contradictory. Hephthalites had ‘since time immemorial’ lived a settled life, ‘were ruled by one king’ and ‘had a state system based on law’. They were reported a tribe which dwelt in towns. Hephthalites were ruled by one king. His residence was a fortified town. The Hephthalite state covered a huge territory and the regions forming it were dependent upon the central authority to varying degrees. There was an administrative machinery at both central and regional levels. During the 550s

the Hephthalite king had an adviser. The state system was a complex amalgam of institutions originating in Hephthalite society.

The period from the late third to the eighth century was a very complex one in the history of Khwarizm (Chorasmia). It was marked initially by the decline and fall of the huge Kushan Empire, the rule of the Hephthalites in Central Asia and their conflict with the Sasanians, while the close of the period coincides with the Arab conquest of the entire region. The area's development over these centuries was determined by two basic factors: the growth of feudal relations and outside invasions.

In the early fourth century, Afrig came to power in Khwarizm after founding a new era, according to al-Biruni who lists 22 rulers of the dynasty founded by Afrig.

Between the fourth and the sixth century the cities of Khwarizm underwent a marked decline, with a cut-back in the irrigation network. This is usually blamed on a socio-economic depression, the scale of which is unclear, though it was more pronounced on the periphery of the country. In the VIII century, Khwarazm was occupied by Arabic caliphate.

During the third to the eighth century Sughd (Sogdiana) included the basins of the rivers Zerafshan and Kashka Darya. From the third to the eighth century Sughd, which had originally lagged behind its neighbours to the south and west, became one of the most advanced countries and the leader of all Mawarannahr. It was neither a powerful state itself nor firmly subjected to any of the neighbouring empires. Private individuals such as merchants, missionaries and mercenary soldiers were extremely active and penetrated into distant lands. Thus political isolation did not entail cultural isolation. Other people knew the Sogdians mainly as silk merchants, but the basis of the Sogdian economy was agriculture on artificially irrigated land. From the very beginning, the Silk Route was controlled by Sogdian merchants.

Sogdia was under the control of different dynasties in different periods. In VIII century, it was occupied by Arabs.

The two centuries during which the Türks were the dominant power in Inner Asia would seem to mark a turning point since, for the first time in recorded history, an essentially nomad empire bordered simultaneously on three major sedentary civilizations. Turkic khaganate was established by Bumin in the mid VI century. In short time, the borders of the khaganate reached from China to the shores of the Black Sea to the west, from southern Siberia to Khorasan. In the 80s of the VI century, the khaganate divided into two: Eastern Turkic Khaganate and Western Turkic Khaganate. Our land was under the control of the latter. The expansion of the territory of Arab caliphate to the west led to the abolishment of Turkic khaganate.

The appearance of Islam integrated nomadic (Bedouin) people under one centralized country. Caliphate's territory was expanded to all sides. Their army headed by skilled commander reached the shores of the Amu Darya in early VIII century. They gradually subjugated the territory of Turkestan starting from Bukhara. Then, they conquered Samarkand, Termez, Ferghana valley and so on. Arab caliphate developed new form of governance developed under the ideology and law of Islam. For instance,

new form of taxation lasting till Soviet time is a clear example of it.

Turkestani people had confessed many religions such as Zoroastrianism, Shamanism, Tengriism, Christianity, Judaism, Buddhism and so on. Therefore, Arabs were resisted fiercely by local people and there were some revolts against Arabic rule in the Area. For example, the rebellions of Muqanna, Rafi ibn Layth are clear examples of it.

Almost contemporaneously with the Tahirids, the representatives of another local dynasty, that of the Samanids, began to assert themselves in Mavarannahr. An ancestor of the Samanids, Saman-Khuda, was the founder and ruler of the estate of Saman, which is identified in a number of sources with various settlements of the same name. Saman-Khuda enjoyed the patronage of the governor of Khurasan, Asad bin Abdullah al-Qasri (725–7, 735–8), and converted to Islam, while Saman-Khuda's son Asad was later converted to Islam in Merv by the future caliph al-Mamun (813–33). The sons of Asad – Nuh, Ahmad, Yahya and Ilyas – took part in putting down the uprisings of Rafi bin al-Layth (805–10), served the caliph al-Mamun and, as a reward for their services to him, were appointed rulers of a number of rich provinces: Nuh of Samarkand, Ahmad of Ferghana, Yahya of Chach and Ustrushana, and Ilyas of Herat. The Samanid brothers, while initially subject to the Tahirids, were largely autonomous rulers in their own territories, minted bronze coins in their own names, and mustered militias and mounted campaigns against surrounding provinces. The energetic Nuh bin Asad did much for the advancement of the Samanids and the consolidation of Mavarannahr, subjugating the province of Isfijab on the frontier with the Turkic nomads in 839–40. However, the basis of the future unitary Samanid state was laid by Ahmad bin Asad, the most capable of the brothers. Ahmad had seven sons: Nasr, Yaqub, Yahya, Asad, Ismail, Is'haq and Hamid. After the death of Nuh bin Asad in 841/842, the governorship of Samarkand passed into the hands of Ahmad's son Nasr, and after the death of Yahya bin Asad, the governance of Chach and Ustrushana was transferred to Yaqub, another of Ahmad's sons. Thus, in the middle of the ninth century, the first partial unification of Mavarannahr took place, with its main provinces under the authority of the house of Ahmad. The process of uniting the state was completed with the entry into the political arena of Nasr's brother, the energetic, intelligent and far-sighted Ismail b. Ahmad, who became the virtual founder of the Samanid state. The activity of Ismail began in Bukhara, where he was invited by his elder brother Nasr to be governor after the fall of Tahirid power in 874. The more powerful role played by Ismail and his appanage of Bukhara, the military clash between the brothers in 888 and the victory of Ismail over Nasr greatly strengthened Ismail's de facto power in Mavarannahr. In the subsequent years of his rule, Ismail (892–907) displayed great ability in setting up an orderly system of central and local state administration (diwans), organizing the army and ensuring the internal and external security of the country, and creating opportunities for economic and commercial development and for the resurgence of local scientific and literary traditions. Ismail's military victories over the Saffarids in 898 and 900 made possible the incorporation into the Samanid state of Khurasan, Sistan, Tokharistan and

Kabulistan, while in the Syr Darya basin he managed to create a fortified border from Isfijab to Taraz and eastern Ferghana. A little later, at the high point of Samanid power, the southern frontiers of the state extended as far as the Sulayman mountains, Ghazna, Kandahar and the Persian Gulf. But at the same time, the peripheral provinces retained a substantial degree of autonomy, paid no regular tribute and, indeed, many of the local ruling dynasties in those provinces were not replaced. Some degree of religious freedom also continued. Not all had yet fully converted to Islam in the upper Oxus River valley, where the populations of Badakhshan, Wakhan and Shughnan continued to profess their ancient religions.

The system of government. In this system, the head of state was the amir, and the provinces were governed by his appointed governors. Together with the royal court (dargah), ten centralized military and civilian bureaux (diwans) were created. The main diwan (the diwan of the vizier) controlled all administrative, political and economic institutions. Financial affairs were conducted by the diwan of the mustawfi, diplomatic relations and important state papers were the responsibility of the amid al-mulk (or the diwan al-rasail, i.e. of correspondence), the royal guard and military affairs generally came under the diwan of the sahib al-shurta, and the state mail and the clandestine surveillance of local rulers and officials were dealt with by the diwan of the sahib al-barid which was answerable solely to the central authority. Markets, weights and measures and trade generally, and, later, public morals, were controlled by the diwan of the muhtasib. Control over revenue and expenditure and over other state matters was exercised by the diwan of the mushrif (inspector). There were also diwans for juridical affairs, state lands and waqf (pious endowment) lands. The local organs of all the diwans, apart from the postal administration, were responsible both to the central authority and to the local provincial rulers.

The very names of the diwans indicate the functions of a clearly structured state apparatus, one of whose major functions was the collecting of taxes from the population of the agricultural oases, artisans and merchants. Available information indicates that the over-all budget of the Samanid state amounted to some 45 million dirhams, of which about 20million dirhams were spent on maintaining the army and state officials.

Due to political crisis, in particular, the attacks of Qarakhanids and Ghaznavids, Samanid state weakened considerably and could not resist. As a result, they lost the power in 999, and the last Samanid, Isma'īl II, after a five-year struggle against the Ghaznavid Maḥmūd and the Qarakhanids, was assassinated in 1005.

Ghaznavid dynasty. The founder of the dynasty was Sabuqtigin (ruled 977–997), a former Turkic who was recognized by Samanids as governor of Chazna. As the samanid dynasty weakened, Sebuqtigin consolidated his position and expanded his domains as far as the Indian border. His son Mahmud (ruled 998–1030) continued the expansionist policy, and by 1005 the Sāmānid territories had been divided. The Amu Darya formed the boundary between the two successor states to the Sāmānid empire, the Ghaznavids ruling in the west and the Qarakhanids in the east. Ghaznavid power reached its zenith during Maḥmūd's reign. In Khorāsān and Khwārezm, Ghaznavid

power was challenged by the Seljuks. Mas'ūd suffered a disastrous defeat and Iran and Central Asia were lost to the Seljuqs. This led to the control of Turan by Seljuks and Karakhanids.

Qarakhanid Dynasty, also spelled **Karakhanid**, also called **Ilek Khanid** (999–1211). The Qarakhanids, who belonged to the Qarluq tribal confederation, became prominent during the 9th century. With the disintegration of the Samanid dynasty, the Qarakhanids took over the Samanid territories. In 999 Harun (or Ḥasan) Bughra Khan, grandson of the paramount tribal chief of the Qarluq confederation occupied Bukhara, the Samanid capital, Bukhara.

Early in the 11th century the unity of the Qarakhanids was fractured by constant internal warfare. In 1041 Muḥammad Ayn ad-Dawlah (reigned 1041–52) took over the administration of the western branch of the family, centred at Bukhara. At the end of the 11th century, the Qarakhanids were forced to accept Seljuq suzerainty. With a decline in Seljuq power, the Qarakhanids in 1140 fell under domination of the rival Turkic Karakitai confederation, centred in northern China. Uthman (reigned 1204–11) briefly re-established the independence of the dynasty, but in 1211 the Qarakhanids were defeated by the Khwarezm-Shah Ala ad-Din Muhammad and the dynasty was extinguished. Minora-i Kalan in Bukhara was built by Qarakhanids.

Seljuq, also spelled **Seljuk**, ruling military family of the Oghuz (Ghuzz) Turkic tribes that invaded southwestern Asia in the 11th century and eventually founded an empire that included Middle East, and most of Iran.

During the 10th-century migrations of the Turkic people from Central Asia were led by a chief named Seljuq, settled in the lower reaches of the Syr Darya. They played a part in the frontier defence forces of the Samanids and later of Mahmud of Ghazni. Seljuq's two grandsons, Chaghri (Chagri) Beg and Toghril Bek.

Seljuq empire. Under the sultans Alp-Arslan and Malik Shah, the Seljuq empire was extended to include all of Iran and Mesopotamia and Syria, including Palestine. In 1071 Alp-Arslan defeated an immense Byzantine army at Manzikert. The way was open for Seljuqs to settle in Asia Minor.

Adud al-Dawla Ahmad Sanjar (Turkish Sanjar. 'He who pierces, thrusts') governed the eastern provinces of the Great Seljuq empire for some sixty years, being appointed in 490/1097, while still a boy, by his half-brother, the Great Seljuq sultan Berk-yaruk after the unsuccessful revolt in Khurasan. He remained there, as boy and man, until his death shortly after escaping in 1156 from the custody of the Oghuz of Khurasan. In order to secure these important regions, Malik Shah had appointed the keeper of the royal washing bowls (tast-dar), his commander Anush-tegin, as titular governor at least in Khwarazm. During Berk-yaruk's reign, the sultan appointed in 1097 another Turkish ghulam, Ekinchi b. Kochkar, with the historic title of Khwarazm Shah. When, in that same year, Ekinchi was killed, Berk-yaruk nominated in his stead Anushtegin's son Qutb al-Din Muhammad as governor, and Muhammad's tenure of power there (1097–1127) inaugurates the fourth and most brilliant line of hereditary Khwarazm Shahs. This

dynasty eventually built up, as the Seljuq empire in the east tottered to its close, the most powerful and aggressively expansionist empire in the Persian lands, in the end defeating their rivals for control of Khurasan.

Khwarezm-Shah dynasty, Khwarazm-shah or Khorezm-shah, (c. 1077–1231), dynasty ruled in Central Asia, and Iran, first as vassals of the Seljuqs and later as independent rulers.

The founder of the dynasty was Anushtegin who was appointed governor of Khwarazm about 1077 by Malik Shah. His descendants governed Khwarezm on behalf of the Seljuqs. In 1141, with the defeat of the Seljuq sultan Sanjar by the Karakitai confederation of northern China, the rulers of Khwarezm were forced to acknowledge the overall sovereignty of the Karakitai.

Following Sanjar's death in 1157, the Khwarezm-Shah Tekish was one of many contenders in a struggle for supremacy. By 1200 the Khwarezm-Shah had emerged victorious. Ala al-Din (reigned 1200–20) created a short-lived that stretched from the borders of India and China to those of Anatolia. The empire did not endure, however; the Mongol army of Genghis Khan conquered Mavarannahr in 1220. The last Khwarezm-Shah, Jalal al-Din Menkburni (reigned 1220–31) spent his life fighting against Mongols.

Mongols, after defeating the land of Mavarannahr, was controlled by its branch – Chagatai Ulus by the time Amir Temur had come to the power in 1370. There were rebellions against Mongols, but they were suppressed fiercely By Mongols and pro-Mongols.

One of the most extensive military empires in the medieval Islamic East was that of Timur, the fruit of his long years of campaigning and the resultant destruction of many towns and regions. Into this empire were incorporated, in addition to Mavarannahr and Khwarazm, the regions around the Caspian Sea, Iran, Iraq, part of the southern Caucasus, and the territory of present-day Afghanistan and northern India.

Formation of Timur's empire

In 1360 and 1361 the Khan of Moghulistan, Tughluq Timur, campaigned in Mavarannahr. One of his followers was the future 'conqueror of the world' as the authors of eulogistic histories dubbed their hero, Timur of the Barlas tribe. The Barlas had settled as early as the beginning of the fourteenth century in the valley of the Kashka Darya adopting their religion (Islam) and gradually giving up nomadic ways, like a number of other Mongol tribes in Mavarannahr. Political instability in Chagatai Ulus and struggles for the throne opened the ways for Amir Temur to come to the power. After ten-year military activity, Amir Temur was able to liberate Turkestan from Mongols and establish his empire in 1370.

Amir Husayn, who cheated Amir Temur in Janggi Loy in 1365, established himself in Samarkand, assuming the rulership of Balkh also. Timur took control of Kish (Shahr-i Sabz) and Karshi. Their alliance quickly soured turned to enmity. Each saw the other as the one resolved to strike the first blow. Timur besieged Balkh: the fortifications were

breached and on 10 April 1370, the city was taken. Husayn tried to hide in one of the minarets beyond the fortress wall, but was captured and killed by one of Timur's allies and established himself in Samarkand, assuming the rulership of Balkh also. After the capture of Balkh, Timur summoned, in the city itself, a kurultai (meeting of the military chiefs and nobles of the tribes). To the title of amir was added the honorific Güregen, since Timur married one of Husayn's widows, Mulk-khanum (Bibi-khanum), who was the daughter of the Kazan Khan, a descendant of Chinggis Khan. In deference to Mongol tradition, handed over control of the state to the house of Chaghatay and restored their 'rights'. He proclaimed Soyurghatmish, a descendant of Chaghatay, as Khan. After Soyurghatmish's death in 1388, another Chinggisid, Sultan Mahmud, was appointed titular Khan by Timur. This experience shows the use of limited monarchy, or monarch as a symbol of the unity of the nation as now popular in Japan, UK and other European monarchy states.

Emir Temur led military campaigns in order to strengthen his empire. His army occupied a vast land of 10 million sq.km. It reached from eastern Turkestan to the Mediterranean Sea to the west, from Siberia to the Indian Ocean to the south.

Reorganization of Timur's army

Timur saw in the waging of uninterrupted wars of conquest the principal means of increasing his power. The instrument of conquest was the army. Its basic striking force was the cavalry, recruited from the population. The infantry was recruited from the settled peoples. To defend themselves against the enemy, the foot-soldiers would form up in front of their troop, dig ditches, build defensive shields and screens, and under cover of these would shoot arrows and throw spears at the foe.

The basic weapons of pitched battle were bows, both large and small (the arrows being kept in quivers of plate metal). For close combat the soldiers used swords, curved sabres (shamshirs), throwing spears, and clubs. By the second half of the fourteenth century, firearms began to make their appearance in the Near East, but nothing is known of their use in Timur's armies. The soldier's equipment included shield, body armour and helmet. On the occasion of Timur's triumphal entry into his Samarkand palace, all the weapons and armour used during the time he had been away from the town. Among other items there were 3,000 suits of body armour, decorated with fine cloth, of very fine workmanship; though they do not make them strong enough and do not know how to temper iron [properly]. There were also many helmets 'round and tall'. Attached to the helmet was a plate, two finger sin breadth, that descended to the wearer's brows and protected the face against sideways strokes. At that time Timur gave out armour and helmets to 'knights and other individuals.

When fortifications were to be stormed, siege-engines were used, and by means of catapults or ballistas breaches were made in the walls, tunnels were dug under them and fires started in the tunnels. To storm fortress walls, the warriors used siege-ladders and ropes, which they threw over the projections of the walls. They were skilled at building pontoon bridges, which after the river had been crossed were usually demolished.

Before battle was joined, the king's great drum and the war drums were beaten, the kettledrums sounded and the trumpets blown.

The decimal system traditional among the Mongols was adopted by Timur also. The army was divided into tümens ('ten thousands'); mingliks, that is to say, thousands; yüzlüks (hundreds); and onluks (tens). Small formations (up to 500 men) were called khoshuns in Mavarannahr. The yüzlüks and the mingliks were commanded by yüzbashis and minbashis. The larger formations were commanded by amirs and princes (mirzas). Those dispatched to raise armies in the provinces were known as the tavachis; they had other important functions as well, for example, the division of spoils among the warriors, the assignment of sectors for digging of defensive ditches around the camp, and so on.

The army had two wings, the centre (here, as a rule, was to be found the headquarters, or borgah) and a vanguard, surrounded by outposts (kanbuls), which were often the first to engage the enemy. The various formations had different coloured clothing, red, white, blue, etc. Scouts (khabargirs) reported on enemy movements. The army was accompanied by porters (kachars). The army camp, if it was pitched close to the enemy's position, was surrounded by entrenchments, and large defensive works (chapars), as well as mobile towers, were erected. In extreme cases, linked carts (arabas) were also used as well as screens.

In his 35 year-rule, Amir Temur held many military campaigns.

In 1372 Timur launched a campaign against Khwarazm.

Timur mounted a second campaign against Khwarazm (1373–4), but no actual fighting took place because Yusuf Sufi offered his apologies.

Timur seized Urgench, the capital of Khwarazm, in 1388 and overthrew the Sufi dynasty.

In 1381 Timur unleashed his forces on the Kart principality in northern Afghanistan.

Between 1386 and 1404 Timur's hordes repeatedly raided the Trans-Caucasian countries from northern Iran.

In 1386 Timur captured Tabriz in southern Azerbaijan.

In 1387 Timur captured their capital Isfahan.

By 1392 Timur's hordes had conquered the Sayyid state in Mazandaran.

The conquest of Iran was completed by 1393.

The struggle between Timur and Toktamish was a long and stubborn one. It was only after three major campaigns, in 1389, 1391 and 1394–5, that the Golden Horde was finally crushed.

In September 1398 Timur himself crossed the Indus.

In September 1399 he rode out of Samarkand at the head of his armies on a new western campaign. Leaving Mavarannahr by northern Iran, he led his horde across the Trans-Caucasus, ravaged Azerbaijan, Armenia and Georgia.

Timur laid siege to Damascus in January 1401.

Timur, meanwhile, in 1401 turned eastwards to deal with the Jalayirid capital Baghdad.

In the decisive battle of Ankara on 20 July 1402, he defeated Ottoman Sultan Bayezid.

Timur's last great military undertaking was to have been his projected campaign against China, but this was interrupted by the death of the 'conqueror of the world' in 1405, aged 70.

After the death of Amir Timur, conflict broke out among the members of his house, the rulers of the state domains and the provincial governors. Khalil Sultan, (Timur's grandson and the son of Miranshah) proclaimed himself the head of the Empire. They refused to accept Pir Muhammad designated by his grandfather as his successor. Shah Rukh (1405–47) declared himself an independent ruler, governing a large domain that included Khurasan and the Herat region. A serious rival to Shah Rukh appeared in the person of Khalil Sultan. Pir Muhammad was assassinated. In 1409, Shah Rukh defeated Khalil Sultan and took power in Mavarannahr and appointed Mirzo Ulughbek the ruler of Samarkand (1409-1449).

After Shah Rukh's death in 1447, the heir apparent Ulugh Beg won the dynastic struggle but, unable to consolidate his power in Herat, was forced to return to Samarkand. The power struggle in Herat contributed to the breaking-off of relations between Ulugh Beg and his son Abd al-Latif. In autumn 1449 at Dimashq, near Samarkand, there was a battle between the two men; Ulugh Beg's army suffered a defeat and, on the orders of Abd al-Latif, he left for the pilgrimage to Mecca. After the assassination of Ulughbek, the struggles for the throne increased sharply. Subsequently, the struggle for succession raged mainly between Abd Allah b. Ibrahim b. Shah Rukh and Abu Said (son of Miranshah; 1451–69).

With Abu Said's death, the Timurid realm finally split into two sections, Khurasan and Mavarannahr, with their adjacent provinces. Power in Khurasan, with Herat as its capital, went to Sultan Husayn Bayqara (1469–1506) while Mavarannahr was divided into parts. This division, the rivalry between princes, disloyalty of officials opened a good opportunity for Uzbek tribes to come and occupy Timurid subjects easily.

Shaybanids. By the end of the fifteenth century, Timurid power in Mavarannahr had split into a number of principalities ruled by independent and semi-independent sultans (princes or chiefs). Tashkent had passed into the hands of the Chinggisid Yunus Khan of Moghulistan, and, following his death, to his son Sultan Mahmud Khan. Khwarazm (Khawrazm) was only nominally subject to the ruler of Khurasan, Sultan Husayn (1469–1506), who had his seat at Herat.

At the end of the fifteenth century, the eastern Dasht-i Qipchaq was occupied by nomadic and semi-nomadic Turkic and Turkicized people who claimed descent from Shayban. Shaybani Khan became actively involved in the political events of the Timurid principalities.

In a series of campaigns from 1500 to 1503, Shaybani Khan managed to seize Samarkand, Bukhara, Tashkent and Andijan. He found one stubborn opponent in Zahiruddin Muhammad Babur as is known you from the school. In 1505 Shaybani Khan's army took the city of Urgench after a ten-month siege, signalling the beginning of the annexation of the whole of Khwarazm, which belonged to the residual Timurid empire of Herat. The ruler of Herat, Sultan Husayn Bayqara (1469–1506), was already at odds with rebellious emirs and his own unruly sons. His attempts to mount a campaign against Mavarannahr proved abortive, and when he decided to take to the field with a united force, having assembled his troops at Herat, he was no longer capable of leading an army. On his death in 1506 his two sons, Badi al-Zaman Mirza and Muzaffar Husayn Mirza, succeeded jointly to the throne. Both the Herat rulers proclaimed a campaign against the Uzbeks, and began to assemble a force on the banks of the Murghab, where Babur also dispatched his troops. In 1506 Shaybani Khan's troops took Balkh, but the khan hesitated to move against the united Timurid forces. However, those forces soon dispersed on their own. Finally, in 1507 Shaybani Khan took Herat almost without a fight. With the subjugation of the territory of present-day Turkmenistan, including Merv and the city of Astarabad, the Uzbek conquest of the lands previously under Timurid rule was practically complete.

Throughout the existence of the Shaybanid khanate, its borders were never stable. After Muhammad Shaybani was killed near Merv in a battle with Shah Ismail in 1510, Khurasan was lost to the Safavids and Khwarazm became independent of the Shaybanid khanate – it was soon to be ruled by the descendants of Chinggis Khan's son Shayban from another branch. It was again briefly conquered by the Uzbek Shaybanid khan Ubaydullah (1533–9); and in 1593 Abdullah Khan managed to annex it to the Shaybanid empire. After his death in 1598, Khwarazm regained its independence.

Abdullah Khan's later years were troubled by a rift with his ambitious son Abdul Mumin, who, dissatisfied with his viceroyalty at Balkh, sought to control more territories and even to replace his father. Since practically all the old Uzbek nobles rallied to the cause of their traditional master, Abdul Mu'min turned against them. Abdullah Khan died in 1598 while preparing to deal with a Kazakh invasion under Tevke Khan (Tevekkel, Tavakkul, 1582–98). Abdul Mu'min marched to Samarkand to claim the succession and then carried out a massacre of the members of his own family to eliminate any possible rivals; he also put to death a number of Abdullah Khan's commanders and nobles. So when he himself was assassinated before the end of 1598, while on his way to Balkh to face a Persian invasion, there was no easily identifiable heir left to claim the throne and the great edifice that Abdullah Khan had built began to break up irrevocably.

The establishment of Janid (Astarkhanid) power

Upon the death of Abdul Mumin Khan, the notables at Bukhara dredged up Pir Muhammad Khan, from among the few surviving members of the Shaybanid house and raised him to the position of khan. The Uzbek notables at Balkh installed a dubious pretender, Abdul Amin. At Herat, Din Muhammad Sultan was proclaimed de-facto

khan, because he was the son of a daughter of Abdullah Khan, although nominal khanship was vested in his father, Jani Beg Sultan, a migrant from Astrakhan. Thus, one can date the start of the Janid or Astarkhanid dynasty to 1598. However, the conflicts and wars with Iran, Kazakh khan led to many problems, political instability and divisions from 1598 to 1601.

The cause was saved by the exertions of just one man, Baqi Muhammad Sultan. Fleeing from the battle of Herat, he appeared at Bukhara, and, while temporarily acknowledging the authority of the Shaybanid khan, Pir Muhammad, exerted himself in driving away Tevke's hosts. As the Kazakhs retreated, he established himself at Samarkand, where after some time he declared himself independent. He marched to Bukhara and made it his capital. The recovery of Balkh was another major success in 160. Next year he offered successful resistance to Shah Abbas, who personally led an expedition to expel the Uzbeks from Balkh. Subsequently, in 1603, he also subjugated Badakhshan. Baqi Muhammad Khan was formally proclaimed the supreme khan in 1603. He is described by contemporaries as a man of out-standing intellect and bravery. His reign was, in any case, a short one, since he died in 1605. During Baqi Muhammad Khan's reign, Balkh and the adjacent territory were placed under the authority of his brother and successor, Wali Muhammad Khan. The city was a major centre of crafts and of domestic and foreign trade. The de-facto power of Janids was established and last till 1747. During their power, Mings under Shah Ruh Bi gained autonomy and later formed a sovereign Kokand Khanate. Consequently, there appeared three states such as Bukhara, Khiva and Kokand Khanates. These khanates had strong enmity which prevented them from unification and these opened a good way for colonialists to occupy the area with not big effort.

The Bukhara khanate was divided into wilayats (provinces), each headed by a hakim (governor). The wilayats were in turn divided into tumans. If a canal was dug from a river, and the water irrigated 100,000 tanabs (1 tanab=approx. 40 m) of land, such land was known as a tuman. District offices were subordinate to heads of departments in the capital. At the head of the state was the khan. In practice, many Janid khans were completely dependent on their grand emirs, who possessed their own troops.

A decisive role in the Janid state was played by the ataliqs, who received their pay in the form of an appanage. The mushrif (supervisor), whose duties included noting all grants made by the sovereign and maintaining records of kharaj (land tax) receipts in daftars (tax registers); the mirshab (chief of night duty); the dadkhwah, in charge of receiving complaints from the population; the mirakhur, or master of the stables; the dastarkhwanchi (court official, lit. 'spreader of the banquet cloth'); the munshi (chancery secretary), and others.

The ruling class included members of the ulama (high clergy). Some of these were sayyid and seek a high status accordingly. Another group of privileged individuals, calling themselves khwaja. Beginning in the sixteenth century, a decisive role was

played by the Juybari shaykhs. It was usually from among their number that the guardian of the law, or shaykh al-Islam, was chosen.

The waqfs were managed by sadrs ('eminences'), whose task was to supervise the activities of the mutawallis, the managers of waqf institutions. Justice was in the hands of qazis (judges). From amongst the jurists a mufti was appointed, whose duties included ruling on religious and legal questions. An important place in the administration was occupied by the muhtasib (market inspector), whose task it was to ensure order in the market, to check the accuracy of weights and measures in the bazaar, to guarantee the quality and standard of goods, and also to ensure that the inhabitants observed practices enjoined by Muslim law.

The rise of the Manghit dynasty

Under the last rulers of the Janid dynasty, the Bukhara khanate was quite clearly falling apart. Ferghana, Balkh, Khwarazm and a number of smaller towns and regions broke away. Nadir Shah (1736–47) of Persia decided to take advantage of the anarchy at Bukhara. In the middle of 1740, Nadir started from Herat on his great campaign in Mavarannahr. The dominant role in Bukhara at this time was played by two Manghits, the ataliq Muhammad Hakim and his son Muhammad Rahim. After Nadir Shah had crossed the Amu Darya, Muhammad Hakim himself was sent to the shah by the khan, Abul Fayz, bearing rich gifts. Abdul Hakim, however, went over to Nadir Shah and returned to Bukhara practically as his representative, taking up residence in the Miri Arab madrasa. As the Persian troops drew near, both Abul Fayz and Muhammad Hakim went to Nadir's field head-quarters. The shah and the khan reached a peaceful settlement which was also placed on the basis of a family alliance, as Nadir married one of Abul Fayz's daughters. However, Nadir annexed all areas south of the Amu Darya and henceforth gave his orders to the administrative authorities and population of Bukhara exclusively through the intermediary of Muhammad Hakim. The latter's brother, Daniyal, became the ruler of Kermina, while his son Muhammad Rahim was made the leader of a force of 10,000 horsemen from the Bukharan army sent to supplement the Persian forces.

The khan's recognition of the authority of Nadir Shah in fact marked the end of independent rule by the Janid dynasty and the beginning of the ascension of the Manghits. Evidence of this is to be seen in the part played by Muhammad Hakim, who in later years took the title of amiri kabir, or 'Great Emir'. After his death in 1743, this title was conferred on his son Muhammad Rahim. By 1747, which was also the year Nadir Shah died, Muhammad Rahim had succeeded in creating his own well-equipped armed forces under loyal commanders. That same year he had Abul Fayz put to death. The latter's place was taken by his 10-year-old son Abdul Mumin, but a year later he too was executed and another of Abul Fayz's sons, Ubaydullah, was made khan, but only as titular ruler. Having secured the support of the ulama, the nobility and the leaders of the Manghit tribe, Muhammad Rahim ascended the throne of Bukhara with the title of Amir in 1753, thus formally initiating the rule of the Manghit dynasty, which was to last until 1920.

In the period of Amir Muzaffar, the emirate lost its independence and became the protectorate of Russian Empire losing its big territory. The last ruler Amir Alim Khan could not stop the coup and had to leave in 1920. Consequently, there was established People's Republic of Bukhara (1920-1924).

The Khanate of Khiva

Early in the sixteenth century Khwarazm was nominally dependent on the Timurid Sultan Husayn Bayqara (1469–1506). In 1505 Shaybānī Khān (1500–10) seized Khwarazm, after laying siege to Urgench (Urganj) for eleven months.

The death of Shaybani Khan marked the beginning of the end of unified Shaybanid rule throughout Central Asia and not just in Khurasan. Khwarazm was temporarily under Safavids. The Safavid garrisons had to quit Khwarazm, and Ilbars founded the Arabshahid dynasty in 1511. From 1538 to 1540 the Arabshahids had to face the attempts of the Bukhara Uzbek ruler, Ubaydullah Khan (1512–39), to reduce them to submission; and in 1593 they faced a similar attempt by Abdullah Khan.

During the seventeenth century the Khiva khanate passed through a period of internal strife and political instability. In the time of Arap Muhammad severe strife broke out among his sons. Isfandiyar overcame his brother Ilbars and ruled as khan from 1623 to 1642. Having been placed on the throne by the Turkmens, Isfandiyar had to oblige them. The feuds within the khan's family continued until Isfandiyar's brother Abul Ghazi, who had been repeatedly sent into exile. Abul Ghazi was able to return and seize power. He deprived the Turkmens of many of their lands and sources of water after a fierce conflict. The struggles for the throne kept growing in the XVII century.

The XVIII century Khiva Khanate history witnessed military invasions of Nadir Shah of Safavids. It weakened Arabshahids and Kongrat (Qonqrāt) ultimately gained ascendancy. In 1770 Muhammad Amin (inaq from 1770 to 1790) defeated the Turkmens in a decisive struggle and marked his success by rebuilding Khiva.

The early decades of the nineteenth century witnessed a gradual strengthening of the central authority in Khiva. The rule of the Uzbek Kongrat dynasty ceased to be merely de facto and was formally asserted in 1804 under the inaq Iltuzer (Ilt Nazar Khan), who declared himself shah. He even proclaimed himself the 'heir of the Khwarazm Shahs', that great dynasty of earlier times. Although he perished in a conflict with Bukhara, his successor, Muhammad Rahim Khan (1806–25), completed the unification of the khanate and brought order to administrative, financial and military affairs. He set up customs offices, minted gold coins (tillas) and paid attention to irrigation work.

It was probably in the time of Muhammad Rahim's successor, Allāh Quli Khan (1825–40), that the city of Khiva flourished most. Truly significant monuments were built such as the Tash-Khawus palace (1832), the mausoleum of Pahlavan Mahmud (1835) and the madrasa of Allah Quli Khan (1835). About the middle of the nineteenth century, the Khiva khanate went into a decline. In 1872, Russian Empire made the plans of conquering Khiva and attacked on it in 1873. From 1873 to 1920, Khiva was the

protectorate under Russian Empire. In 1920, the khanate was eliminated and People's Republic of Khorezm was established.

Kokand Khanate.

The khanate of Kokand (Khoqand) had as its core the territory of Ferghana, which comprises the upper basin of the Syr Darya. In 1709 the khwajas of Chadak rose against the emirate of Bukhara. Shahrukh Bi became the local ruler, though he and his immediate successors refrained from claiming the title of khan. Initially, the new state comprised the town of Kokand, the new capital, and Namangan, Marghilan, Kand-i Badam, Isfara and surrounding areas. The dynasty is known as the Ming dynasty.

Shahrukh died at the age of 40 in 1721. His elder son, Abdul Rahim Bi, who succeeded to the throne, subjugated Khujand, Andijan, Samarkand, Kattakurgan and Jizak. His reign, which lasted for 12 years, ended with his death at the age of 33. Although he was survived by a son, Irdana (Erdeni) Beg, and three daughters, the throne was occupied by a brother of his, Abdul Karim Bi.

Abdul Karim Bi died in 1746 at the age of 40. Although his son succeeded to the throne, he was removed within six months and reduced to the status of a ruler of Marghilan, while power passed into the hands of Irdana, who was also rapidly removed. Baba Beg took the throne and had ruled for about a year when he was lured to Besh-Ariq, where he was murdered. Irdana was then restored to the throne in 1751. Irdana's reign (1751–70) saw two foreign invasions. The struggles for the throne continued. Coming to the beginning of the XIX century, the power became centralized and it lasted till mid XIX century. From 1853 onward, the khanate was attacked by Russian Empire. In 1865, Tashkent was invaded and there was established Turkestan Governor Generalship in 1867. The khanate was abolished in 1876.

Summary.

After reading the material and providing their presence in the lessons, students will learn the history of Statehood in Central Asia, in particular, in Uzbekistan from ancient times to almost 1920. Central Asian statehood history started in the early I millennium BC, well after city formation. The early states were autochthonous ones appearing by the efforts of indigenous people. They were Bactria, Great Khwarazm and Sogdia. The states, though struggled hard, were defeated by Achaemenids. After the fall of this country, Khwarazm was able to restore its independence while Bactria and Sogdia became the subjects of Greek invaders. Although Khwarazm was sometimes dependent to some powers, it was able to restore its sovereignty. The rivalries for power always led to wars between states. Thus history of Central Asia witnessed military attacks of many nations.

The medieval age statehood history represents quite many fundamental transformations in its statehood. It is mostly seen the formation of government, policy as it was during Samanids in which public administration was divided into dargah (legislative and judicial system) and diwans (executive power). The titular also changed

in the area due to Islamic and Turkic factors. For instance, Amir appeared by Islam based governance and replaced Dehqan IAmir Yalantush, Amir Nadir Arlat) in some period and even meant the head of state (Amir Temur, Amirs of Bukhara) while Khan came with Turkic people. Later, the dynasties claiming the realm in the country tried to link themselves with Genghis Khan in order to gain legitimacy and titular of Khan.

The other benefit of this lesson demonstrates the drawbacks of political instability, inner wars, struggles to ascend to the throne, disloyalty of personnel. These factors weakened the states as a result of which they were easily dominated by foreign powers. Besides, the people also lost their confidence and loyalty to the rulers and dynasties owing to instability in the countries.

Questions.

1. What do you understand as a state?
2. What are the states of development of states?
3. What do you know about the titles of rulers?
4. What are the types of state formations?
5. What are factors that led to the crisis of big and strong countries?

Tests.

1. The form of Kangyu state was ...
Absolute monarchy
Confederative
Domain
Khanate
Correct answer: Confederative
2. The title “yabghu” belongs to ...
Turkic nations
Greeks
Persians
Aryans
Correct answer: Turkic nations
3. Which of the following states had diwans functioning as executive power?
Bukhara Emirate
Temurids
Turkic Khaganate
Samanids
Correct answer: Samanids
4. The practice of the appointment of khan with limited power and the governance of the country by another person was experiences by ...
Ismail Samani

Amir Temur

Amir Alimkhan

Mirza Ulughbek

Correct answer: Mirza Ulughbek

5. Find the dynasty ruling Mavarannahr before Shaybanids and after Mongols.

Temurids

Manghits

Khwarazm Shahs

Samanids

Correct answer: Temurids

6. Which of the following authors gave thorough information about the history of Khwarazm?

Narshakhi

Clavijo

Biruni

Fitrat

Correct answer: Biruni

7. Soyurghatmish and Sultan Mahmud were ... in Temur's state.

Puppet rulers

Crown prince

Prime Minister

Atalyq